GST 312 — 90 CBT Practice Questions (Chapters 1-6)

GST 312 — PEACE AND CONFLICT RESOLUTION

CBT PRACTICE QUESTIONS (90) — CHAPTERS 1–6

Instructions: Choose the best answer(s) for each question. Some questions may have more than one correct option — read carefully. Answers are provided at the end of this document only.

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1. The word "conflict" is derived from which Latin word?

A. Conflictus B. Confligere C. Confluere D. Confectus

2. Which scholar's definition of conflict emphasizes that conflict is a dynamic process in which structure, attitudes, and behaviour continuously change and affect each other?

A. Coser B. Galtung (cited in Erco■kun) C. Wright D. Dar

3. According to Bercovitch, Kremenyuk and Zartman (2008), conflict is simply:

A. A fight for scarce resources B. Incompatibility of positions C. A pursuit of incompatible interests D. A contradiction arising from perception

4. A student wants to distinguish between a conflict where parties disagree about *how* to achieve a shared goal, versus one where they disagree about *what* they actually want. Which method of determining issues in conflict (Bercovitch, Kremenyuk & Zartman) is being applied?

A. Differential rewards B. Contending content C. Conflicted evaluation D. None of the above

5. Under "differential rewards," a situation where the reward for one actor translates to punishment for the other is called a:

A. Positive-sum game B. Zero-sum game C. Non-zero game D. Mixed-motive game

6. A society has weak norms/institutions for managing conflict, so actors resort to might to enforce their interests. This best describes:

A. A structured conflict environment B. An unstructured conflict environment C. A positive peace environment D. A negative peace environment

7. Galtung's 1969 definition describes violence as:

A. Any use of physical force B. The gap between the potential and the actual C. Intentional harm caused by an identifiable actor D. All of the above

8. Person X died of tuberculosis in the 18th century when no cure existed anywhere; Person Y dies of tuberculosis today despite widely available treatment. According to Galtung's 1969 definition, which death illustrates "violence"?

A. Only X's death B. Only Y's death C. Both deaths equally D. Neither — disease is never violence

9. Which of the following is NOT one of Galtung's three dimensions of violence?

A. Direct/personal violence B. Indirect/structural violence C. Cultural/symbolic violence D. Institutional/legal violence

10. In Galtung's iceberg/triangle model, which form of violence is described as a "permanence" forming the base that feeds the other two?

A. Direct violence B. Structural violence C. Cultural violence D. None of the above

11. Which of the following are among Ibeanu's (2006) perspectives on peace?

A. Philosophical B. Sociological C. Economic D. Political E. Process

12. According to Francis (2006), peace is defined as:

A. A dynamic ongoing process B. The absence of war, fear, conflict, anxiety, suffering and violence C. A metaphor for stability D. All of the above

13. A writer argues peace is the "natural state of human existence" established by God, citing St. Augustine's City of God and Rousseau's state of nature. Which of Ibeanu's perspectives on peace does this represent?

A. Sociological B. Political C. Philosophical D. Process

14. Which perspective on peace would most likely point to the 1648 Treaty of Westphalia as a turning point?

A. Philosophical Perspective B. Sociological Perspective C. Political Perspective D. Process Perspective

15. Peacebuilding was popularized globally following which UN document?

A. The UN Charter B. An Agenda for Peace (1992) C. The Responsibility to Protect D. The Millennium Development Goals

16. A country invests in de-militarisation, control of small arms proliferation, and electoral reform *before* any conflict escalates. This illustrates:

A. Post-conflict peacebuilding B. Pre-conflict peacebuilding C. Negative peace D. Positive peace

17. The idea of peacebuilding as "statebuilding" was influenced mainly by international experiences in which two territories?

A. Iraq and Afghanistan B. Kosovo and East Timor C. Rwanda and Sudan D. Sierra Leone and Liberia

18. Which epoch of peacebuilding evolution emerged as a critical reaction to the perceived top-down, marginalizing approaches used in Afghanistan and Iraq?

A. Peacebuilding as multidimensional peacekeeping (1989–99) B. Peacebuilding as statebuilding (1999–2005) C. UN Peacebuilding Architecture (2005–2009) D. Nationally-owned peacebuilding (2009–2014)

19. Osaghae & Suberu (2005) attribute Nigerian ethnic tensions primarily to the dominance of which three ethnic groups?

A. Igbo, Ijaw, Kanuri B. Hausa-Fulani, Yoruba, Igbo C. Tiv, Jukun, Berom D. Yoruba, Edo, Urhobo

20. The federal character principle, as discussed in the material, is presented as a policy response to which type(s) of conflict?

A. Ethnic conflict B. Religious conflict C. Economic conflict D. Geo-political conflict

21. Which scholars' work links Nigeria's Niger Delta conflict to deprivation of oil revenue and environmental injustice?

A. Collier & Hoeffler B. Akinola C. Falola D. Osaghae & Suberu

22. "Area Boys" and "Yahoo-Yahoo" fraud syndicates are cited in the material as outcomes primarily linked to:

A. Religious extremism B. Youth unemployment and economic frustration C. Geo-political rivalry D. Ethnic marginalization

23. According to Falola (1998), religious conflict:

A. Strengthens social trust B. Undermines peace, erodes social trust, and threatens national integration C. Has no link to extremist ideology D. Is limited to the South-West

24. Which example is used both in the Religious Conflict discussion and in the "Rise of Terrorism and Religious Extremism" causes discussed elsewhere in the material?

A. Al-Shabaab B. Boko Haram C. MEND D. IPOB

25. The imposition of Sharia law in some Northern Nigerian states, which sparked Christian resistance, is credited to which scholar?

A. Ostien (2007) B. Danfulani (2006) C. Salawu (2010) D. Juergensmeyer (2003)

26. Which of the following are named in the material as policy responses to economic conflict?

A. Progressive taxation B. Federal character principle C. Debt relief and fair-trade policies D. Anti-corruption measures

27. The Bakassi Peninsula dispute is used in the text to illustrate which type of conflict?

A. Ethnic conflict B. Religious conflict C. Geo-political conflict D. Economic conflict

28. Which author links Nigeria's geo-political conflict to debates over which zone should "produce the presidency"?

A. Mustapha (2007) B. Smith (2010) C. Suberu (2001) D. Phillips (2016)

29. Tension over the Nile waters among Egypt, Ethiopia, and Sudan is cited as an example of geo-political conflict driven mainly by:

A. Religious rivalry B. Resource competition C. Electoral politics D. Ethnic identity

30. The Niger Delta Development Commission (NDDC) was established in response to:

A. Religious extremism B. Regional grievances in the Niger Delta C. The Ivoirité crisis D. The Bakassi dispute

31. Comparing the economic conflict discussion in Chapter 2 with the economic marginalization discussion in Chapter 4, which real-world case appears in *both* as an example of resource-based grievance?

A. South Africa xenophobia B. Niger Delta militancy C. Mali/Sahel neglect D. DRC mineral conflict

32. Which of the following are identified as causes of religious conflict?

A. Colonial divide-and-rule legacy B. Misinterpretation of religious doctrines C. Politicians invoking religious identity for political gain D. All of the above

33. A scenario: political elites in a mixed-religion state exploit religious identity purely to win votes and deflect attention from failed governance. Which scholar's argument does this scenario most directly reflect?

A. Salawu (2010) B. Ostien (2007) C. Juergensmeyer (2003) D. Falola (1998)

34. Conflict theories chiefly belong to which type of theory according to the chapter?

A. Normative B. Scientific C. Analytical D. Metaphysical

35. Which theory would attribute a civil war primarily to a capitalist economic structure pitting factory owners against workers?

A. Realist theory B. Radical structuralism (Marxist) C. Frustration-aggression theory D. Psycho-cultural theory

36. Johan Galtung and Marc Ross are identified as examples of which branch of Structural Conflict Theory?

A. Radical structuralism B. Liberal structuralism C. Neo-structuralism D. Realist structuralism

37. According to Ross (1993), which is a weakness of Structural Conflict Theory?

A. It cannot identify underlying causes of conflict B. It overlooks psychological and cultural influences on how people respond to injustice C. It ignores economic exploitation entirely D. It over-emphasizes individual human nature

38. Which theory holds that conflict stems from a basic flaw in human nature — selfishness and an unquenchable thirst for power?

A. Structural Conflict Theory B. Realist Theory C. Frustration-Aggression Theory D. Psycho-cultural Theory

39. Which elements make up Realist Theory of Conflict as outlined in the chapter?

A. Descriptive Realism B. Explanatory Realism C. Prescriptive Realism D. Normative Realism

40. Hans Morgenthau's statement that "the struggle for power becomes inevitable" when actors cannot rely on guarantees of security from others is most closely associated with which theory?

A. Structural Conflict Theory B. Neo-realism C. Frustration-Aggression Theory D. Psycho-cultural Theory

41. Which theory would explain political violence by arguing that groups see politics as a "zero-sum game," making compromise difficult?

A. Realist Theory B. Frustration-Aggression Theory C. Psycho-cultural Theory D. Structural Conflict Theory

42. Who originally developed the Frustration-Aggression theory in 1939?

A. Leonard Berkowitz B. Ted Robert Gurr C. John Dollard D. Davies

43. A community feels that what it deserves (based on its expectations) is far greater than what it is actually receiving, and this gap triggers anger and violence. Which concept and theorist best illustrate this?

A. Security dilemma — Brown (1996) B. Relative deprivation — Gurr (1970) C. Zero-sum game — Morgenthau D. Want-get ratio — Yates (1962)

44. According to Yates (1962), frustration:

A. Always results in aggression B. Never results in aggression C. Creates conditions under which aggression might be more probable D. Is irrelevant to conflict

45. Neo-realism differs from classical Realist Theory mainly by:

A. Rejecting the idea that conflict is about power B. Shifting emphasis from individual human nature to systemic/structural factors of political systems C. Focusing solely on economic class struggle D. Denying that anarchy exists in international relations

46. The situation where one actor's security measures cause insecurity in others, leading to an arms build-up even without aggressive intent, is called:

A. Relative deprivation B. The security dilemma C. Zero-sum competition D. Structural violence

47. Brown (1996) uses the neo-realist idea of self-help to explain conflicts in areas where:

A. Central governments have strong capacity B. State capacity is weak or absent, forcing groups to provide their own security C. Religious extremism is the sole driver D. Economic inequality does not exist

48. Which theorist offers "an exhaustive examination of the psycho-cultural dimensions of conflict"?

A. Ross (1993) B. Gurr (1970) C. Morgenthau (1973) D. Galtung (1990)

49. Ross's (1993) psycho-cultural framework highlights an interplay between identity, narrative, and politics through which elements?

A. Long-held cultural resources/narrative frames B. Memorial events curated across generations C. Zero-sum economic competition alone D. Culturally specified identities/symbols

50. A political actor invokes a national flag, an anthem, and the memory of a past massacre to rally supporters against a rival group. This is best explained using:

A. Realist theory B. Psycho-cultural theory C. Neo-realism D. Structural conflict theory

51. Which statement best captures the chapter's concluding "synthesis and integration" argument?

A. Only structural theory is needed to understand any conflict B. Theories should never be combined C. No single theory explains all complex conflicts; multiple frameworks must be integrated D. Psycho-cultural theory has replaced all earlier theories

52. Who are typically recognized as "sons of the soil" in the indigene-settler phenomenon?

A. Settlers B. Indigenes C. Migrant workers D. Refugees

53. Which section of the 1999 Nigerian Constitution (as amended in 2023) is referenced in relation to preferential access to public employment/education based on indigeneship?

A. Section 14 B. Section 42 C. Section 33 D. Section 9

54. According to the chapter, national governments enforce the indigene-settler difference through which mechanisms?

A. Issuance of indigene certificates B. Restriction of political participation via wards/constituencies C. Preferential access to employment/education/scholarships D. Universal citizenship rights regardless of origin

55. In Jos, Plateau State, which groups are officially recognized as indigenes, while Hausa-Fulani Muslims are treated as settlers despite over a century of presence?

A. Igbo, Yoruba, Ijaw B. Berom, Afizere, Anaguta C. Tiv, Jukun, Idoma D. Kanuri, Shuwa, Babur

56. The concept of "Ivoirité" was used in Côte d'Ivoire to:

A. Promote inclusive citizenship B. Determine who qualifies as a "true Ivorian," excluding many northerners C. End the civil war immediately D. Grant land rights to all residents equally

57. Alassane Ouattara's disqualification from Ivorian presidential elections is a real-world illustration of which broader concept?

A. Structural violence via institutionalized indigene-settler discrimination B. Frustration-aggression theory as applied to trade unions C. The security dilemma D. Positive peace

58. According to AfDB (2022), how many people were displaced by farmer-herder conflicts in Cameroon's Far North Region in 2021 alone?

A. Over 4,000 B. Over 40,000 C. Over 400,000 D. Over 4 million

59. Which of the following is an implication of the indigene-settler divide that connects most directly to Chapter 3's Frustration-Aggression theory?

A. National Disunity B. Youth Radicalization — excluded, frustrated youths recruited into extremist movements C. Undermined Democracy D. Development Setbacks

60. Based on the World Bank's (2022) definition of economic inequality, which scenario would count as an example of it?

A. A country where all citizens earn similar wages B. A small elite enjoys wealth while the majority face low wages and poor healthcare C. A country with no natural resources D. A country with full employment

61. MEND (Movement for the Emancipation of the Niger Delta) is presented in the chapter as evidence that Niger Delta militancy is rooted in:

A. Ethnic hatred between Hausa and Ijaw B. Economic exclusion despite the region's oil wealth C. Religious extremism D. Geo-political zoning disputes only

62. Between 2008 and 2019, xenophobic attacks in South Africa targeted migrants mainly from which countries (as named in the text)?

A. Ghana, Kenya, Egypt B. Zimbabwe, Nigeria, Mozambique C. Senegal, Mali, Niger D. Sudan, Chad, Libya

63. Which single underlying factor connects the Sahel/Mali Tuareg-Fulani neglect discussed under economic marginalization with the Tuareg/Azawad rebellion discussed under separatist agitations?

A. Religious extremism alone B. Perceived government neglect/marginalization of northern communities C. Colonial arbitrary borders alone D. Oil wealth disputes

64. The DRC is described in the chapter as rich in which minerals?

A. Oil, coal, uranium B. Gold, cobalt, diamonds C. Iron ore, bauxite, tin D. Silver, platinum, zinc

65. Which of these are listed among the reasons "social disputes lead to violence"?

A. Breakdown of trust between communities B. Manipulation by political or legal elites C. Failure of traditional or legal institutions D. Universal access to justice

66. The 2007 Kenyan election violence between the Kikuyu and Luo communities is used in the text primarily to illustrate:

A. Geo-political conflict over oil resources B. Social grievances rooted in ethnic mistrust worsened by political manipulation C. Religious extremism D. Irredentism

67. The Berlin Conference that led to the arbitrary drawing of African boundaries took place in which years?

A. 1874–1875 B. 1884–1885 C. 1914–1915 D. 1960–1961

68. Drury's (2022) concept of "irredentism" would most accurately describe which of the following scenarios?

A. A country seeks to reclaim a neighbouring territory based on shared history, language, or ancestry B. A region within a country seeks total independence purely for economic reasons C. Two ethnic groups within one country compete for civil service jobs D. A religious group seeks recognition of its holy sites

69. Which international court ruled in favour of Chad in the Aouzou Strip dispute with Libya?

A. The International Criminal Court B. The International Court of Justice C. The African Court on Human and Peoples' Rights D. The ECOWAS Court of Justice

70. Comparing the Biafra/IPOB movement with the Ambazonia movement in Cameroon, what grievance do both separatist movements share according to the text?

A. Religious persecution by the central government B. Perceived marginalization/exclusion by the dominant group C. Disputes over oil pipeline routes only D. Boundary disputes with a neighbouring country

71. Which of the following theories discussed in Chapter 3 attributes conflict solely to religious extremism?

A. Realist Theory B. Structural Conflict Theory C. Psycho-cultural Theory D. None of the above

72. The Tiv-Jukun conflict is centred mainly in which Nigerian state?

A. Benue State B. Taraba State C. Nasarawa State D. Plateau State

73. During the colonial period, the British gave Wukari to the Jukuns. Which long-term consequence discussed in the chapter is a direct result of this decision?

A. The Zango-Kataf market dispute B. Disagreements over land ownership/distribution between Tiv and Jukun C. The Aguleri-Umuleri feud over Otuocha D. The Ivoirité crisis

74. According to Nnorom and Odigbo (2015), the Jukun language issue is significant because:

A. It has become the dominant language in the region B. It is on a path toward extinction as many prefer Hausa C. It has strengthened Jukun ethnic pride D. It has no connection to identity or conflict

75. The Tiv-Jukun war of 1981–1982 erupted in the aftermath of which broader political development?

A. The transition to the Second Republic (1979–1983) B. The Nigerian Civil War C. The Berlin Conference D. The Ivoirité policy

76. In the 1956 federal elections for the Wukari Federal Constituency seat:

A. Mallam Ibrahim Sangari (NPC/Jukun) defeated Charles Tangur Gaza B. Charles Tangur Gaza (UMBC/Tiv) defeated Mallam Ibrahim Sangari (NPC/Jukun) C. Abdullahi Sule defeated Zamani Lekwot D. None of the above

77. Which peace effort in the Tiv-Jukun case involved a nine-point resolution?

A. The Justice Rahila Cudjoe Commission of Inquiry B. The Benue-Taraba cross-border state-level peace pact (April 2020) C. The Global Peace Foundation interfaith outreach D. The ACPSPC engagement with Fulani leaders

78. Which state is the setting for both the 1992 market-relocation violence and the earlier 1922 Emir of Zaria land dispute?

A. Taraba B. Kaduna C. Anambra D. Plateau

79. The Zango-Kataf violence of May 1992 was immediately triggered by a dispute over:

A. Chieftaincy succession B. Relocation of a market away from Hausa-controlled territory C. A farmland boundary D. A religious conversion case

80. According to Rotimi (1996), approximately how many people were reported to have died in the May 1992 Zango-Kataf violence?

A. About 60 B. About 250 C. About 471 D. About 700,000

81. Major General Zamani Lekwot's arrest following the Zango-Kataf violence illustrates a broader pattern also seen elsewhere in the chapter, namely:

A. Government/military intervention and arrests following escalation of a communal conflict B. International mediation by the African Union C. Peacekeeping under the UN Charter D. None of the above

82. The Aguleri-Umuleri conflict is a dispute between two Igbo clans over ownership of:

A. A market in Zango Kataf B. Otuocha, a river beach on the Omambala River C. Wukari town D. The Bakassi Peninsula

83. Which factor is common to both the Aguleri-Umuleri conflict and the general "proliferation of small arms" cause of conflict discussed in Chapter 4?

A. Excessive militarisation of the disputing communities B. Colonial boundary demarcation C. Religious extremism D. Irredentism

84. According to Onu (2009), the appropriate approach to conflict resolution depends on:

A. Only the personalities involved B. The nature, history, and culture of the conflict C. International law exclusively D. None of the above

85. A negotiation approach that focuses on satisfying the interests of all parties, rather than simply bargaining for advantage, is called:

A. Power Negotiation B. Interest-Based Negotiation C. Non-Binding Arbitration D. Mediation

86. LeBaron Duryea (2001) defines mediation as a process where the third party:

A. Has the power to impose a binding solution B. Helps disputants resolve a dispute but does not have power to impose a binding solution C. Acts as a judge D. Is always a government official

87. Williams (2003)'s critique — that mediators are often unaware of how their own cultural context shapes their idea of "procedural acceptability" — implies that:

A. Mediation is a purely neutral, culture-free process B. Effective mediators must actively work to uncover their own cultural biases C. Mediation should never be used across cultures D. Arbitration is always superior to mediation

88. According to Best (2005), much of third-party intervention in African traditional societies — including most Igbo land disputes — is resolved through:

A. Non-binding arbitration B. Dialogue C. Arbitration D. Peacekeeping

89. In the Darfur case, the African Union's appointment of Dr. Salim Ahmed Salim as Chief Mediator followed a session held in which city, and led to which outcome?

A. Addis Ababa; a permanent peace treaty B. Abuja, Nigeria; two short-term Peace Agreements between the Sudanese government and JEM/SLA C. Nairobi; a ceasefire enforced by NATO D. Cairo; UN Security Council sanctions

90. Which of the following are identified in Chapter 6 as approaches to peace-building and conflict resolution?

A. Negotiation B. Mediation C. Arbitration D. Peacekeeping E. Structural Conflict Theory

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ANSWER KEY

1. B
2. B
3. B
4. C
5. B
6. B
7. B
8. B
9. D
10. C
11. A, B, D, E
12. B
13. C
14. C
15. B
16. B
17. B
18. D
19. B
20. A, D
21. A
22. B
23. B
24. B
25. C
26. A, C, D
27. C
28. A
29. B
30. B
31. B
32. D
33. B
34. C
35. B
36. B
37. B
38. B
39. A, B, C
40. B
41. A
42. C
43. B
44. C
45. B
46. B
47. B
48. A
49. A, B, D
50. B
51. C
52. B
53. B
54. A, B, C
55. B
56. B

57. A
58. B
59. B
60. B
61. B
62. B
63. B
64. B
65. A, B, C
66. B
67. B
68. A
69. B
70. B
71. D
72. B
73. B
74. B
75. A
76. B
77. B
78. B
79. B
80. C
81. A
82. B
83. A
84. B
85. B
86. B
87. B
88. C
89. B
90. A, B, C, D

Peace and Conflict Resolution — CBT Practice Questions (Part 2)

45 questions · Chapter 7 (cont.), Chapter 8, Chapter 9 · Answers at the end

1. The CDP-360 is described as being especially valuable for which group, and why?

A. New employees, because it teaches conflict avoidance B. Leaders, managers, and high-potential employees, because conflict presents unique challenges for them C. HR departments only, because they administer the test D. All of the above

2. The USAID conflict assessment process moves through four steps. Which is the correct order?

A. Describe Opportunities → Evaluate Context → Understand Grievances → Identify Drivers B. Evaluate the Context → Understand Core Grievances/Resilience → Identify Drivers/Mitigating Factors → Describe Opportunities C. Identify Drivers → Describe Opportunities → Evaluate Context → Understand Grievances D. None of the above

3. In the USAID framework, 'mitigating factors' are best described as:

A. Elements like local traditions, values, and institutions that foster peace and resilience B. Only military interventions C. Factors that always cause conflict D. None of the above

4. 'Mirror imaging' in destructive intergroup conflict refers to:

A. Each group viewing the other negatively while seeing itself positively B. Two groups adopting identical strategies C. A mediator reflecting both sides' views back to them D. None of the above

5. Which of the following are listed as main guiding principles of constructive conflict? (Select all that apply)

A. Mutual respect for all parties B. Open communication C. Winning the argument decisively D. Active listening to understand differing perspectives

6. A manager wants to soften how a complaint is introduced to a team member during a disagreement. Based on the individual-level strategies described, what should be addressed first?

A. The underlying feelings, before addressing the specific issue B. The consequences for the team C. Company policy D. None of the above

7. Participatory research approaches in ethnographic peace studies differ from traditional ethnography mainly by:

A. Actively involving local communities as co-owners of the research B. Excluding community members from data gathering C. Relying only on archival documents D. None of the above

8. Comparing the Yoruba and Ohafia Igbo dispute systems, what do both have in common?

A. Both rely solely on written statutory law B. Both use a tiered/graduated structure of authorities before reaching a final arbiter C. Both exclude elders from decision-making D. Neither involves any council or assembly

9. Among the Nuer of South Sudan, the material states that political allegiance and the framework for conflict resolution are intricately based on:

A. Age-set membership only B. Kinship ties C. Judicial precedent D. None of the above

10. Among the Maasai, how does the age-set system structure conflict-related roles?

A. Warriors handle community defence while elders take advisory/decision-making and dispute-settlement roles B. All age-sets perform identical roles C. Only elders are permitted any role in defence or disputes D. None of the above

11. A central ethical tension repeatedly raised in critiques of anthropological peacebuilding is between:

A. Cultural relativism and universal human rights B. Qualitative and quantitative methods only C. Domestic law and international law D. All of the above equally

12. Comparing kinship/age-set systems (Ch. 7) with the CDP's focus on 'behaviours' rather than fixed 'styles,' what do both approaches share?

A. Both treat social roles/behaviours as structured mechanisms that can organize or improve how conflict is handled B. Both are exclusively modern Western inventions C. Neither relates to conflict management D. None of the above

13. Social justice, as defined in the material, primarily promotes:

A. Fairness and equity in the distribution of resources, opportunities, rights, and privileges B. Uniform punishment for all crimes C. The abolition of all customary law D. None of the above

14. Which philosophers are cited as having created a background for understanding modern social justice?

A. Plato, Aristotle, and John Rawls B. Xenophon, Tacitus, and Robespierre C. Bascom, Nsugbe, and McCall D. None of the above

15. Which of the following are listed among the core elements of social justice? (Select all that apply)

A. Equity B. Recognition C. Accountability D. All of the above

16. Chapter II of the Nigerian Constitution (Fundamental Objectives and Directive Principles of State Policy) states that every state must ensure citizens have the right to access:

A. Quality healthcare, adequate housing, food, and education B. Free international travel C. Unlimited land ownership D. None of the above

17. Comparing the 'Access' and 'Participation' elements of social justice, what distinguishes them?

A. Access concerns availability of basic amenities without discrimination; Participation concerns engagement in activities/decision-making that affect individuals B. They are identical concepts with different names C. Access is about voting only D. None of the above

18. Why does the material suggest a society with a long history of injustice is more likely to face conflict?

A. Because social justice encourages peaceful coexistence, collaboration, and shared responsibility, so its absence removes that stabilizing foundation B. Because injustice has no bearing on conflict C. Because only economic factors cause conflict D. None of the above

19. The plural legal system in Nigeria today is a direct result of:

A. British colonial introduction of English common law over pre-existing indigenous/customary law in the 19th century B. The 2023 Arbitration and Mediation Act only C. The abolition of all customary courts in 1960 D. None of the above

20. Which court handles appeals in cases involving Islamic personal law?

A. Customary Court of Appeal B. Sharia Court of Appeal C. Federal High Court D. Magistrate Court

21. Comparing the Federal High Court and State High Courts, what is the key distinction in jurisdiction?

A. Federal High Court handles matters expressly mentioned in the Constitution (e.g. immigration, taxation, copyright); State High Courts have jurisdiction over civil/criminal cases within the state and are the highest court there B. They have identical, fully overlapping jurisdiction C. State High Courts only hear appeals D. None of the above

22. Which body is in charge of regulating law schools and maintaining standards in legal education in Nigeria?

A. Nigerian Bar Association (NBA) B. Council of Legal Education (CLE) C. National Judicial Council (NJC) D. Legal Aid Council of Nigeria (LACoN)

23. The Legal Aid Council of Nigeria (LACoN) primarily helps improve which NBA function?

A. Setting professional conduct standards B. Ensuring access to justice for those who cannot afford legal representation C. Regulating law schools D. None of the above

24. Which law was established to provide frameworks for counter-terrorism operations and conflict management in regions affected by insurgency?

A. Land Use Act B. Terrorism (Prevention and Prohibition) Act, 2022 C. Public Order Act D. Election Act

25. The Environmental Impact Assessment (EIA) Act is most directly relevant to preventing disputes in which context?

A. Election-related disputes B. Environmental disputes caused by ecological deterioration, especially in oil-producing states C. Immigration disputes D. None of the above

26. Among the formal/state-based institutions listed, which is responsible for internal security and intelligence?

A. National Human Rights Commission (NHRC) B. Department of State Services (DSS) C. National Orientation Agency D. Ministry of Justice

27. Comparing Customary/Sharia Courts with Councils of Elders and Traditional Rulers, what is the key structural difference?

A. Customary/Sharia Courts function under the state judicial system, while Councils of Elders are not part of the official legal system but still play a vital role in resolving disputes B. Both are formally part of the state judicial system with identical powers C. Neither has any role in dispute resolution D. None of the above

28. The National Early Warning and Response Mechanism is designed to track conflict indicators in collaboration with which bodies?

A. ECOWAS and civil society B. Only the Nigerian military C. The United Nations Security Council exclusively D. None of the above

29. Comparing the challenges listed under 'Challenges of the Nigerian Legal System' (3.3.4) with those under 'Challenges in the Legal Framework for Conflict Resolution' (3.4.2), what pattern do both lists share?

A. Both point to institutional weaknesses (e.g. corruption, poor enforcement, resource/capacity gaps) undermining effective justice and dispute resolution B. Both lists are identical with no distinct items C. Neither list mentions corruption D. None of the above

30. Which of the following correctly distinguishes insurgency from terrorism, as defined in the chapter's introduction?

A. Insurgency is a sustained, armed rebellion focused on territorial control; terrorism is a strategy of violence aimed at creating fear to achieve political goals, frequently targeting civilians B. They are entirely identical concepts with no distinction C. Terrorism always involves territorial control; insurgency never does D. None of the above

31. Which of the following are listed as defining features of insurgency? (Select all that apply)

A. Asymmetry B. Popular Support C. Blending with Civilians D. All of the above

32. Why is 'Political Motivation' listed as a defining feature of insurgency rather than just 'territorial gain'?

A. Because the ultimate goal of insurgency is political change, not merely holding territory B. Because insurgents never seek territorial control C. Because political motivation is unrelated to insurgency D. None of the above

33. The term 'terrorism' can be traced back to which historical origin?

A. The French Revolution's 'Reign of Terror' in the 1790s B. World War II C. The Cold War D. None of the above

34. The Sicarii, cited as an early example of non-state terrorism, operated in which context?

A. First-century Judea, carrying out targeted assassinations against suspected Roman collaborators B. 19th-century Russia C. Post-Civil War America D. None of the above

35. Comparing Roman emperors' use of terror (Tiberius, Caligula) with Nazi Germany/Stalin's Soviet Union, what common thread does the material draw?

A. Both used institutionalized terror (banishment, arbitrary arrests, executions) as a mechanism to suppress dissent and strengthen authoritarian control B. Neither used terror as a political tool C. Only modern totalitarian states used terror; ancient regimes never did D. None of the above

36. Why is terrorism often described as the 'weapon of the weakest'?

A. Because groups lacking the capability for conventional/direct military victory turn to terrorism to seek psychological influence instead B. Because only the strongest states use terrorism C. Because it requires no organization at all D. None of the above

37. The Chibok schoolgirls' abduction in 2014 is used in the material as an example of:

A. Guerrilla warfare against military targets only B. A strategic publicity move showcasing ideological defiance and territorial reach C. Political subversion via parallel courts D. None of the above

38. Comparing 19th-century anarchist assassinations (1865–1905) with the KKK's activities in post-Civil War America, what do both illustrate about the historical use of terror?

A. Terror was used by both non-state ideological movements and paramilitary groups to pursue political/social change or to suppress specific populations B. Both were state-sanctioned military campaigns C. Neither involved any use of violence D. None of the above

39. Which insurgent strategy involves hit-and-run attacks, ambushes, and sabotage aimed at gradually weakening the enemy while exploiting mobility and terrain knowledge?

A. Political subversion B. Guerrilla warfare C. Use of safe havens D. Intelligence and counterintelligence

40. Niger Delta militants attacking oil installations to pressure the government for resource control is an example of which insurgent strategy?

A. Mobilization of ethnic or religious identity B. Sabotage and infrastructure attacks C. Political subversion D. Intelligence and counterintelligence

41. Which of the following is listed as an impact of insurgency/terrorism on Nigeria's national security? (Select all that apply)

A. Exacerbation of ethno-religious divides B. Declining international perception and diplomatic challenges C. Erosion of territorial integrity D. All of the above

42. How does the material connect 'Exacerbation of Ethno-Religious Divides' with the recommendation on justice and inclusive nation-building?

A. Both point to the same underlying fix: inclusive governance, reconciliation, and equitable treatment across groups rather than military response alone B. They are unrelated topics in different chapters C. Ethno-religious divides can only be solved militarily D. None of the above

43. Why does persistent insecurity weaken Nigeria's diplomatic leverage, according to the material?

A. Because internal crisis dominating global media coverage eclipses the country's significant economic and cultural contributions B. Because Nigeria has no international relationships C. Because insecurity has no effect on foreign perception D. None of the above

44. Comparing Chapter 8's Multi-Door Courthouse System with Chapter 9's recommendation for a 'holistic approach balancing military action with socioeconomic reform,' what shared principle connects them?

A. Both reflect a preference for combining multiple tools/approaches rather than relying on a single rigid method to resolve disputes or conflict B. Both rely exclusively on military force C. Neither involves any form of negotiation or reform D. None of the above

45. A CBT question asks you to link Chapter 7's constructive conflict principles (mutual respect, open communication) with Chapter 9's recommendation on justice and inclusive nation-building. What is the shared underlying theme?

A. Both apply military solutions B. Both emphasize addressing underlying grievances/relationships constructively rather than relying purely on coercion C. Neither relates to conflict resolution D. None of the above

ANSWER KEY

1. B 2. B 3. A 4. A 5. A, B, D
6. A 7. A 8. B 9. B 10. A
11. A 12. A 13. A 14. A 15. D
16. A 17. A 18. A 19. A 20. B
21. A 22. B 23. B 24. B 25. B
26. B 27. A 28. A 29. A 30. A
31. D 32. A 33. A 34. A 35. A
36. A 37. B 38. A 39. B 40. B
41. D 42. A 43. A 44. A 45. B

Peace and Conflict Resolution — CBT Study Guide (Part 3)

Condensed exam guide covering Chapter 10 (complete), Chapter 11 and Chapter 12

CHAPTER TEN

International Organizations and Conflict Resolution

2.0 Chapter Objectives

- Clarify the key concepts: conflict, conflict resolution, and international organizations.
- Understand the roles played by international organizations (UN, AU, ECOWAS) in conflict resolution, especially in Africa.
- Identify and describe key organs of the UN, AU and ECOWAS used in conflict resolution.
- Recognize and describe the mechanisms international organizations employ in conflict resolution.
- Ascertain and explain the achievements and challenges international organizations face in conflict resolution.

3.1 Conflict

Disputes, violent confrontations and wars between states (inter-state conflicts), or between a state and a rebel group, or between groups within a state (intra-state conflicts).

3.2 Conflict Resolution

Scholars debate using “conflict resolution” and “conflict management” interchangeably; Sewell (1999) notes contention over how closely the two are connected. Conflict resolution is broad enough to manage conflicts and redress their root causes, in contrast with conflict management, which emphasizes negotiated agreement and settlement; conflict prevention, in turn, works through preventive diplomatic means and the non-use of force or violence.

3.3 The Concept of International Organizations

Institutions comprising membership of governments or non-government entities, catering to their members' specific objectives with a scope of operations that transcends national borders. International organizations are basically of two types, depending on who constitutes their membership: **Inter-governmental organizations (IGOs)**, whose members are governments of countries (e.g. UN, AU, ECOWAS), and **Non-governmental organizations (NGOs)**, whose members are non-governments — private individuals and civil groups.

4. International Organizations and Conflict Resolution: UN, AU and ECOWAS

Since the emergence of the state system, international organizations have been prominent in resolving international conflicts and maintaining global peace and security; numerous conflicts have been solved through negotiated settlement led by international organizations (Peter D.T. (ed), 2009). The UN was formed to rescue future generations from the menace of war through conflict resolution and maintenance of global peace and security. Through tools/mechanisms such as peacekeeping, international organizations at sub-regional, regional and global levels (UN, AU, ECOWAS respectively) have increasingly become greater agents of conflict resolution.

4.1 The United Nations: Key Organs and Mechanisms for Conflict Resolution

The UN's establishment hinges on managing and resolving conflicts to maintain international peace and security. The UN Charter's preamble states: “We the people of United Nations determined to save succeeding generation from the scourge of war… do hereby established an international organization to be known as United Nations (UN)” (The Charter of UN, 1945). The UN's first purpose is to maintain international peace and security, which has conflict resolution as a basic pillar.

4.1.1 Key Organs of the UN for Conflict Resolution

The key organs are the Security Council, the ICJ, the General Assembly, and the Secretariat (especially its Department of Peace Operations, DPO):

- **Security Council:** primary responsibility for international peace and security through conflict management/resolution. Authorizes peacekeeping operations and special political missions, works with the peacebuilding commission, imposes sanctions. Consists of 10 non-permanent members elected every two years, and 5 permanent members with veto power (P-5): USA, Russia, UK, France and China.
- **Secretariat:** headed by the Secretary-General; administers the UN, manages and resolves conflicts especially through its **Department of Peace Operations (DPO)** (plans/deploys/manages peacekeeping) and its **Department of Political and Peacebuilding Affairs (DPPA)** (manages Special Political Missions and post-conflict peacebuilding to avoid relapse). Assisted by the **Mediation Support Unit (MSU)**, which provides logistics/advisory support to peace envoys, enabling rapid deployment of mediators, negotiators and peacemakers.
- **General Assembly:** deliberative organ of all member states (one vote each, deniable after two years of unpaid dues). Deliberates on peace, conflict prevention/resolution, and approves the peace-and-security budget; can approve/authorize a peace operation when the Security Council is deadlocked or inactive during a serious crisis. Jointly with the Security Council, appoints the Secretary-General and ICJ judges. Its special peacekeeping committee, the **C-34**, has existed since 1965 to review and recommend on UN peacekeeping operations.

• **International Court of Justice (ICJ):** the UN's judicial arm; resolves conflict by adjudicating cases between nations, dispensing the arbitration strategy of UN conflict resolution. A nation need not be a member to be affected by the ICJ. Consists of 15 judges elected by the Security Council and General Assembly for nine-year terms.

4.1.2 United Nations' Mechanisms for Conflict Resolution

Since 1945 the UN has developed a set of peace activities/tools to realize conflict resolution and management and to maintain global peace and security (United Nations, 2008). These tools include:

- Conflict Prevention and Mediation
- Peacemaking
- Peacekeeping
- Sanctions
- Peacebuilding
- Other diplomatic measures, such as arbitration and humanitarian assistance

4.1.3 Conflict Prevention and Mediation

Applies structural and diplomatic measures to keep intrastate or interstate tensions and disputes from escalating into violent conflict. Its main tool is **preventive diplomacy** — diplomatic action taken to prevent disputes from escalating into conflicts and to limit the spread of conflicts when they occur (dppa.un.org). It also entails peacemaking: early-warning systems and mediation before, during and after conflicts. Delivered through Peace Envoys, Good Offices of the UN Secretary-General, and political missions directed by DPPA and its Mediation Support Unit (MSU). The UN favours prevention/avoidance above any other conflict resolution mechanism.

4.1.4 Political Missions

Besides peacekeeping missions, the UN also operates **Special Political Missions (SPMs)** — special civilian missions engaged in conflict prevention and resolution of emerging deadly conflicts, and sustenance of peace through post-conflict peacebuilding worldwide. They provide prompt responses with assistance in mediations and reconciliations, facilitation of peace agreements, elections, rule of law, and monitoring human-rights violations (Better World Campaign, 2022). SPMs include country-specific missions, panels and regional offices, Good Offices of the UN Secretary-General, and Personal/Special Envoys of the UNSG. Current SPMs are more than double the number of existing UN peacekeeping operations, and are supported by DPPA.

4.1.5 Peacemaking

A reconciliatory, diplomatic tool used to address an ongoing or emerging conflict, especially by facilitating a negotiated agreement between warring parties (UN DPKO/DFS, 2008). It occurs under peacekeeping, peacebuilding, and other occasions; DPPA and DPO are actively involved. Example: in the 2015 Malian conflict, a UN peacekeeping mission facilitated a peace agreement between the Malian state and armed groups.

4.1.6 Peacebuilding

Mostly diplomatic, political and developmental activities used to sustain peace and avert a relapse into conflict in a post-conflict state — strengthening national capacities for conflict management and laying the foundation for sustainable peace and development (UN DPKO, 2008). Includes electoral assistance, promotion of justice, removal of root causes of conflict, reconstruction, and humanitarian assistance. Numerous organisations are involved, including the World Bank, IMF, DPPA and the Peacebuilding Commission.

4.1.7 Sanctions

A coercive instrument in which the UN Security Council imposes an embargo on an aggressive state or group to facilitate compliance. Though coercive, it is not violent and falls short of peace enforcement (which UN peace operations largely avoid); enforcement is usually left to a coalition of willing states or regional organizations after Security Council authorization. Examples:

- 2011: intervention in Libya authorized by UNSC Resolution 1973 (2011), implemented by NATO.
- Mali: France intervened with Operation Serval following UNSC Resolution 2085 (2012).

4.1.8 Peacekeeping

The UN's most visible and active conflict-management tool: preserves the peace, however fragile, where fighting has been halted, and assists in implementing peacemakers' agreements (UN DPKO, 2008). Boutros Boutros-Ghali (“An Agenda for Peace,” 1992) defined it as “a technique that expands the possibility for both the prevention of conflict and the making of peace.” Peacekeeping missions often also cover conflict prevention, peacemaking and early peacebuilding (election assistance, disarmament, demobilisation, reintegration). Working definition: an instrument used to sustain peace and assist in implementing peace agreements through a UN-authorized operation of military, police and civilian personnel, deployed after hostilities cease in intrastate or interstate conflicts.

UN peacekeeping began in 1948 as the United Nations Truce Supervisory Organization (UNTSO); the 1956 UN Emergency Force (UNEF, 1956–67) marked the first deployment of a lightly-armed infantry battalion serving as a buffer, during the Suez Crisis (United Nations, 2015). UN peacekeeping has since moved from monitoring/supervisory missions to multidimensional and integrated missions, and has established over 70 peacekeeping missions in total. Currently 11 UN peacekeeping missions are active, with about 70,000 personnel, 5 of which overlap with AU/ECOWAS deployments.

Current UN Peacekeeping Missions Around the World

No.	Acronym	Name of Mission	Conflict / Country	Est.
1	MINURSO	UN Mission for Referendum in Western Sahara	Western Sahara in Morocco	1991–
2	MONUSCO	UN Organization Stabilisation Mission in DR Congo	Kivu Conflict in DR Congo	2010–
3	UNISFA	UN Interim Force for Abyei	Abyei Conflict in Sudan	2011–
4	UNMISS	UN Mission in the Republic of South Sudan	Ethnic conflict / Sudanese Civil War	2011–
5	MINUSCA	UN Multidimensional Integrated Stabilization Mission in CAR	Central African Republic Civil War	2014–
6	UNMOGIP	UN Military Observer Group in India and Pakistan	Kashmir conflict (Asia)	1949–
7	UNFICYP	UN Peacekeeping Force in Cyprus	Northern Cyprus dispute (Europe)	1964–
8	UNMIK	UN Interim Administration Mission in Kosovo	Kosovo War — Serbia/Kosovo (Europe)	1999–
9	UNTSO	UN Truce Supervision Organization	Israel, Egypt (Middle East)	1948–
10	UNDOF	UN Disengagement Observer Force	Israel, Lebanon, Syria (Middle East)	1974–
11	UNIFIL	UN Interim Force in Lebanon	Lebanon	1978–

5. African Union and Conflict Resolution

The African Union (AU) is a continental inter-governmental organization formed in 2002, taking over from the Organization of African Unity (OAU, formed 1963). The AU envisions “an integrated, prosperous and peaceful Africa, driven by its own citizens and representing a dynamic force in the global arena,” with Agenda 2063's flagship initiative of “Silencing the Guns by 2020.” It works alone and in collaboration with the UN, ECOWAS and other organizations.

5.1 Key Organs of the AU for Conflict Resolution

i) Peace and Security Council (PSC): instituted under the AU's Constitutive Act in 2002, formally operational from 2004, drawing power from the Act, PSC protocols and Rules of Procedure. 15 members: 10 elected by the AU Assembly for two-year terms and 5 for three-year terms, based on equality and rotation. PSC is AU's fundamental decision-making body for conflict prevention, management and resolution — a collective security and early-warning system that facilitates prompt responses to conflict situations, and the main pillar of the **African Peace and Security Architecture (APSA)**, the framework for promoting Peace, Security and Stability in Africa.

Powers and Functions of the PSC:

- Prevention of disputes and conflicts as a process of resolving conflicts
- Engagements in peace-making and peacebuilding to resolve conflicts and sustain peace
- Authorization of peace support missions
- Instituting Sanctions
- Recommendations of intervention in a member state where there are atrocious crimes
- Responsible for implementing the AU's defence policy
- Supporting/facilitating humanitarian actions in conflict zones and post-conflict situations
- Enforcing AU's decisions, such as deployment of peace support operations

ii) African Union Commission (AUC): though not the major AU organ for conflict resolution, it helps the PSC through its portfolio on Peace and Security (prevention, management, resolution) and its Department of Political Affairs, Peace and Security (PAPS).

iii) Collaborative Bodies of the PSC:

- **Military Staff Committee:** helps with military and security matters
- **Committee of Experts:** assists in preparation of draft documents, especially with the PSC decisions
- Other regional/sub-regional and global organizations, such as the UN Security Council
- **African Union Police Strategic Support Group (PSSG):** made up of chiefs of police and technical experts who assist the PSC with strategic advice and support

PSC also works with the rest of the APSA pillars: the Continental Early Warning System (CEWS), the Panel of the Wise, and the Peace Fund.

5.3 Mechanisms of the Peace and Security Council for Conflict Resolution

- **Conflict Prevention:** AU anticipates/prevents conflicts by using specifically developed indicators to give prompt information about emerging violent conflict. Its major mechanism is the **Continental Early Warning System (CEWS)**,

which includes a Situation Room at PAPS and Observation/Monitoring Centres of Regional Economic Communities (RECs), which monitor, anticipate and prevent conflicts through transmission of information for timely, sound decision-making. The **Panel of the Wise** also assists here.

• **Mediation and Peacemaking:** the PSC's Panel of the Wise offers neutral third-party intervention, helping with preventive diplomacy and mediation, and advising groups as part of peacemaking.

• **Peacekeeping and Peace Support Missions:** through the PSC, the AU helps disputing parties de-escalate violence and attain ceasefire, reach a peace agreement, and sends peace support/observation/monitoring missions, humanitarian assistance and peacebuilding. PSC uses the **African Standby Force** to deploy peacekeeping operations in various forms — peace support missions, interventions, and political missions.

Since the 21st century, 38 African-Led peace operations have been authorized and deployed to 25 countries: AU authorized 22, OAU 4, and ECOWAS 6 (Allen, N.D.F., August 9, 2023 — Centre for African Strategic Studies). Current/recent AU Peacekeeping and Peace Support Operations include:

• **AUSSOM** (African Union Support and Stabilisation Mission in Somalia): UN-AU authorized, the most current mission (2025)

• **AMISOM** (African Union Mission in Somalia), 2007–2022; replaced in 2022 by **ATMIS** (African Union Transition Mission in Somalia)

• **UNAMID** (African Union-United Nations Mission in Darfur): AU-UN hybrid mission, 2008–2021

• **RCI-LRA** (Regional Cooperation Initiative for the Elimination of the Lord's Resistance Army), 2011–2018

• AU Human Rights Observers and Military Experts in Burundi, 2015–2021

In support of these missions and other activities, the **Peace Fund** provides funding sourced from the regular AU budget, voluntary contributions of member states, international partners, and civil societies. PSC also offers peacebuilding activities (developmental and structural support) in post-conflict zones to sustain peace and prevent relapse into violence; the African Standby Force helps facilitate post-conflict disarmament, while the Peace Fund provides needed financial support for peace support missions and other peace and security activities.

5.4 Challenges: in implementing these visions and missions, the AU is confronted by numerous challenges in conflict resolution, including inadequate logistics capacity, financial constraints, weak global cooperation with the UN, external influences, and complex conflict environments (discussed further under section 8, Challenges).

6. Economic Community of West African States (ECOWAS) and Conflict Resolution

ECOWAS is a sub-regional inter-governmental organization aiming to bring about economic integration of member states; it also plays important roles in promoting conflict resolution, with varied experience and history in preventive diplomacy and mediation. ECOWAS possesses organs, groups and departments dedicated to conflict resolution, prevention, management, peacekeeping and security, and post-conflict reconstruction, including mechanisms such as the Council of Elders and ECOMOG.

6.1 ECOWAS Organs for Conflict Resolution

• **The Commission:** through its Department of Political Affairs, Peace and Security (DPAPS) and Mediation Facilitation Division (DMF, established 2015), the Commission develops tools for capacity building in dialogue and mediation. Its Dialogue and Mediation Curriculum (DMC) has a four-phase structure (Halima Ahmed, Foreword, ECOWAS Dialogue and Mediation Handbook).

• **Community Court of Justice:** helps settle disputes between members and protects fundamental human rights.

• **Council of Elders:** helps in mediation and peacemaking, while the Mediation and Security Council and the Defence and Security Commission offer military and security assistance.

6.2 ECOWAS Conflict Resolution Mechanisms and Enforcement Groups

• **Mediation and Conflict Prevention:** ECOWAS engages in preventive diplomacy emphasizing non-coercive, peaceful diplomatic means. The Council of Elders and international personalities facilitate mediation, peacemaking and reconciliation, sometimes using traditional alternative dispute settlement; an early-warning system is also employed to prevent and respond promptly to conflicts. The DMF's Dialogue and Mediation Curriculum (DMC) has four phases: (1) Pre-talk Phase — details the conduct of mediation; (2) Talk Phase — advances and closes the mediation process; (3) Agreement Phase — develops durable and sustainable agreements; (4) Final Phase — monitoring and evaluation of implementation.

• **Peacekeeping and Political Missions:** ECOWAS has rich experience intervening in civil wars/political conflicts in Africa, including recent successful resolution of violent and political disputes. From 2000 to 2023, ECOWAS authorized 6 peace operations.

• **ECOWAS Cease Fire Monitoring Group (ECOMOG):** ECOWAS's key enforcement body, comprising mainly military and police personnel from troop-contributing member states, for managing/resolving conflict especially through peacekeeping and peace-support missions. Recent ECOMOG missions: ECOWAS Stabilisation Support Mission to Guinea-Bissau (SSMGB), 2022–; ECOWAS Mission in Guinea-Bissau (ECOMIB), 2012–2020; ECOWAS Intervention in Gambia, 2017–2020; ECOWAS Mission to Liberia (ECOMIL), 2003; ECOWAS Mission to Cote d'Ivoire (ECOMICI), 2003. Past interventions: Togo (2005, 2007), Guinea (2008–2010), Guinea-Bissau (2008–2009, 2012–2014, 2015–2017), Cote d'Ivoire (2011–2012), Niger (2009–2011), Mali (2012–2014), Burkina Faso (2014–2015).

- **ECOWAS Standby Force:** a recent, not-yet-fully-functional enforcement group similar to ECOMOG, which builds up and deploys interventions in conflict zones (peacekeeping/peace support).

Achievements and Challenges: ECOWAS has recorded many successful political interventions, but still faces challenges such as poor funding, incapacity of conflict-management response, and difficulty sustaining conflict management/resolution. It also currently suffers an integration crisis following the formation and exit of the Alliance of Sahel States (AES) from ECOWAS, hindering effective collaboration with organizations like the UN; dependence on external resources and influence constrains prompt response to conflicts and resolution.

7. Achievements of International Organizations (UN, AU and ECOWAS) in Conflict Resolution

- **Resolution of Conflict and Restoration of Peace:** UN, AU and ECOWAS have achieved restoration of peace in states such as Liberia, Sierra Leone and Cote d'Ivoire; UN missions there successfully concluded their mandate on 30 June 2017.
- **Prevention and Control of Conflicts:** international organizations have reduced the number of conflicts and de-escalated ongoing violence. UN contributions include management/control of conflict in Mali (2013–2018), the Central African Republic, and Sudan; historically, in Lebanon (1958), Yemen (1963–64), and Congo (1960–1964).
- **UN Provides Humanitarian Assistance to Conflict and Post-Conflict States:** UN, AU and ECOWAS promote conflict prevention and cushion humanitarian impacts through delivery of relief material and food for displaced persons. UN-AU provides peacebuilding, humanitarian services and quick developmental projects to citizens in conflict and post-conflict zones; the UN is currently present in the Russia-Ukraine war and in North-East Nigeria, providing humanitarian aid to victims of terrorism and violent conflict.

8. Challenges Faced by International Organizations (UN, AU, ECOWAS)

8.1 Logistics and Financial Constraints

The scale and complexity of modern multidimensional peace support missions require heavy budgets and high-level logistics that UN member states and allied regional organizations struggle to meet, constraining timely deployment and mission completion.

8.2 Complexity of Conflicts and Conflict Resolution

Some conflicts combine violence from rebels, extremists, terrorists and trans-border criminal groups (e.g. Mali, Somalia, Congo, Sudan), presenting great difficulty for UN and especially ECOWAS conflict management, and leading to high fatality rates among peacekeepers.

8.3 External and Special Interests Pursued by Great Powers

Member-state policies can oppose collective will. Terrif and Keeley (2007) argue that high expectations of UN conflict-management ability have been reduced/influenced by member states' interests, especially major powers. Example: France's undue influence over the MINUSMA stabilization mission in Mali — France eventually exited Mali after the recent military takeover.

8.4 Inadequate Institutional Structure

The huge size and complex decision-making/administrative structure of organizations like the UN and AU make rapid deployment difficult, since the UN lacks its own stand-by force and depends on Troop Contributing Countries (TCCs).

8.5 Deficient Cooperation in UN–Regional Organizations' Peace Operations

Example: in the Malian conflict (2011–2013), UN–AU/ECOWAS collaboration was strained, especially during the transition from the African-Led International Support Mission to Mali (AFISMA) to the UN Multidimensional Integrated Stabilisation Mission in Mali (MINUSMA). Financial/logistics incapacity and external interest have sometimes hindered regional organizations' cooperation in UN-led missions even within their own regions.

9. Summary and Conclusion

International organizations continue to actively manage and resolve conflicts worldwide, particularly in Africa, helping save future generations from the scourge of war. Peacekeeping is the most prominent/active UN tool; preventive diplomacy and mediation are the most preferred mechanism. Challenges span administrative, financial, structural, capacity/logistic and doctrinal areas. UN Secretary-General António Guterres is restructuring the UN peace architecture (reforms in DPPA and DPO; the A4P — Action for Peacekeeping — initiative) toward a more people-centred approach with special concern for human rights protection. Since Africa hosts about 45% of the world's peacekeeping operations, the AU should enhance its own financial and logistic capacity to partner more efficiently with the UN and take a greater role in conflict resolution within the continent.

CHAPTER ELEVEN

The Media and Traditional Institutions in Peace Building — Chiazor Anthonia Chiaghana, Dept. of Mass Communication, Nnamdi Azikiwe University, Awka

2.0 Chapter Objectives

- Understand the concept of the media and its roles to society.
- Explain the concept of traditional institutions and understand the overview of peace building.
- Explain the roles of the media in peace building, countering disinformation and peace messaging.
- Analyse the roles of traditional institutions in promoting peace messaging, social cohesion and settling local disputes.

The Media: An Overview

Media is broadly a channel of communication — a powerful tool for communicating ideas and sharing information, news, entertainment and messages with large groups of people, cutting across regions and boundaries (Ayodele, 2022). Freedom of expression is not only the core of a healthy media but a fundamental human right, vital for a democratic structure (Kuusik, 2010). As the "fourth estate," media is susceptible to manipulation positively and otherwise regardless of the issue of discourse (Abubakar, 2021), and it contributes to peace building through non-partisan, balanced information, accountability, and direct conflict-related programmes (Spurk, 2002).

The Role of the Media in Society

- **Information Dissemination:** media serve as gatekeepers, reporting events, political developments, scientific discoveries and social issues so people can be informed (Murugesan, 2023; Okoro, Icha-Ituma & Okunna, 2020).
- **Agenda Setting:** media focus public attention on specific issues; issues receiving the most media attention become issues the public discusses, debates and demands action on (MacQuail, 2010).
- **Influence on Public Opinions and Attitudes:** media shapes how issues are perceived by influencing language, context and emphasis, moulding collective beliefs, values and behaviours.

What is a Traditional Institution?

Governance of the community at the grassroots, with rulership rooted in the customs, traditions and culture of the people within the locality (Nwosu, 2022) — systems of governance and social structures rooted in established customs, traditions and cultural practices, described as key in promoting peace building in every society (Lamai, 2020). Examples: traditional rulers, elders, traditional courts, customary practices, age grades and religious institutions.

Per Connor et al. (2025), traditional institutions can:

- Play a significant role in maintaining social harmony, mediating conflicts and promoting community development; conduct conflict analysis to uncover the root causes of disinformation.
- Facilitate mediation and dialogue to rebuild trust and inclusion, and support democratic governance especially at the local level.
- Promote reconciliation that supports long-term healing, and take collective decisions ensuring peaceful co-existence among members.
- Use storytelling to build empathy across divides.
- Apply moral imagination to help societies envision new ways of living together and hold communities together, ensuring everyone lives in peace and harmony.
- Remain relevant in resolving social disputes, land disputes, and in preserving/managing natural resources and heritage sites.

What is Peace Building?

The implementation of measures intended to create or sustain peace, especially in an area affected by conflict. The Kroc Institute for International Peace Studies (2025) describes it as the development of constructive personal, group and political relationships across ethnic, religious, national and racial boundaries, aiming to resolve injustice non-violently and transform the structural conditions that generate deadly conflict; it includes conflict prevention, management, resolution/transformation and post-conflict reconciliation. Christofis (2020) similarly describes peace building as a complex process involving multiple actors and requiring values, goals and commitment to human rights and needs — aiming to establish durable peace and prevent the recurrence of violence, encompassing negotiation, reconciliation, mediation, facilitation, alternative dispute resolution and non-violent resistance (Uwem, 2020).

The Media and Peace Building

Media's role in peace building cuts two ways: it can report and reflect on pressing issues, or it can be used for propaganda and to cover things up, curtailing people's freedom and right to information. Countering disinformation involves strategies to address the spread of false or misleading information, primarily to protect public trust and prevent harm (Kuusik, 2010): lack of information can make people desperate, restless and easy to manipulate. Impartial, independent global media is essential for informing the global community and supporting those directly impacted, but since only a limited number of conflicts receive international coverage, local media's role is particularly crucial. During the #EndSARS protests against Nigerian police brutality, the media informed the masses of the factual story behind the protest, countering misconceptions between youths and the police (Ogbemi, 2020).

Fundamental roles of media in peacebuilding:

- **Information Provider:** non-partisan, balanced, accurate information and accountability (Spurk, 2002); creates awareness of trending/emerging development issues.
- **Watchdog:** reveals confidential stories and human-rights/conflict issues needing public discussion and action — e.g. the Benue State farmers–herdsmen conflict, where media coverage attracted peace-oriented public debate (Aondover, Onyejelem & Garba, 2024).

- **Diplomat and Bridge Builder:** influences conflict areas positively by facilitating dialogue and understanding between conflict groups and driving the public towards peace (Chiluwa, 2022).
- **Changing Attitudes and Behaviours:** promotes tolerance and respect for diversity, challenging negative stereotypes.
- **Strengthening Peace:** positive media messages reinforce peace agreements and promote positive intergroup attitudes.

Countering Disinformation in Peace Building

Disinformation is more than the spread of false information — it is structural and systemic, often produced with intent to harm and then shared more widely by people who may not intend to deceive at all (Marx, 2025). Per Connors & Baumhofer (2025), peace-building approaches align with strengthening democratic institutions; media can lead storytelling campaigns, host trust-building dialogues with conflict actors, and address the impact of social-media disinformation (Okocha, Akpe & Odeba, 2024). The media counters disinformation through:

- **Fact-checking and Accurate Reporting:** prioritising fact-checking and truthful, ethical, responsible reporting; news must gain clearance through gatekeepers' scrutiny before publication.
- **Media Literacy:** the ability to sift through and analyse messages that inform, entertain and educate (Okunna & Omenugha, 2012) — essential for combating fake news during sensitive conflict situations (Edeani & Edeani, 2021).
- **Social Media Moderation:** social platforms enable mediators to reach wide audiences, understand different conflict narratives, and find entry points for peacemaking, countering fake news and threat narratives (Witting & Ghoshch, 2020).
- **Collaboration and Partnership:** media working with government to conduct conflict analysis, uncover root causes of disinformation, and rebuild trust and inclusion.
- **Promoting Respectful Online Dialogue:** countering polarization and echo chambers caused by hostile social-media discussions.
- **Independence and Freedom of Expression:** effective countering of disinformation depends on media independence from censorship — government interference can undermine media credibility and accuracy.

Traditional Institutions: Peace Messaging, Social Cohesion, Settling Local Disputes

Traditional institutions are a vital cog in the peaceful existence of communities, using community beliefs, morals, attitudes, social order, authorities/structures and cultural practices to lay a foundation for new governance structures — traditional chiefs serve as custodians of peace, promoting their people's interest in resolving conflicts (Mbwirire & Kurwa, 2018). Peace messaging by traditional institutions is a time-proven system aimed at bringing together dissenting voices and conflicting groups to reconcile, maintain social order, build trust and facilitate social cohesion. Chiefs and councils of elders' involvement in peace-making have always sought to create a balance in dispute resolution that reconciles conflicting parties and differences (Momoh, 2021). Elderly people (those with economic power and social status) play an important role in mediating/negotiating peace, bringing resolution of conflicts and settling local disputes, even though this does not demean their important community position (Momoh, 2021).

Traditional Rulers

Preserve customs/traditions and manage conflicts among community members using the instrumentality of laws and customs:

- **Mediation and Arbitration:** dispense justice and resolve local disputes; high community reputation means their words/actions in settling disputes are respected. They arrange peace-making meetings to develop common generalisations that restore cordial relationships.
- **Community Leadership:** prominent in mediation of disputes, perceived as leaders with the wisdom to navigate negotiation; in many countries, traditional leaders play major roles as mediators of both violent and non-violent conflicts (Mboh, 2022).
- **Reconciliation and Restoration:** skilled at bringing conflicting people together so both sides feel listened to and understood, focusing on healing relationships and restoring harmony.

Family Structure (Family Members/Siblings)

- **Initial Dispute Resolution:** family members resolve local disputes through mediation — inviting a family friend or family member to help talk through the issues, to avoid escalation to a court of law.
- **Extended Family (Umuada and Umunna in Igbo dialect):** disputes that have passed initial family resolution and gone to the extreme are brought to the notice of extended family (kinsmen/kindred women) for resolution.
- **Collective Decision Making:** disputes are settled amicably when family members come together for discussion and open communication; conflict parties are heard on the root cause, enabling the extended family to reach a final decision acceptable to both parties.

Community Elders

- **Wise Council:** revered for their wisdom and experience in matters of dispute resolution.
- **Mediation and Advice:** unbiased mediators who provide impartial guidance regarding the dispute; they do not offer legal advice but advise people on how to resolve an existing conflict.

4.0 Summary and Conclusion

Peace building is the implementation of measures intended to create or sustain peace, especially in an area affected by conflict. The media and traditional institutions are powerful mediums in peace building, susceptible to manipulation positively regardless of the issue of discourse, and they create/promote peace in conflict-prone areas. Media can influence society

before conflict by recognising and properly addressing issues and disseminating appropriate messages that resurrect peace. Traditional institutions, referred to as the core moral social fabric of any society, shape social norms, resolve conflicts and maintain peace within the community. Both forces, in their own ways, can establish durable peace on conflict-prone areas and prevent the recurrence of violence.

CHAPTER TWELVE

Managing Post-Conflict Situations — Austin Ntoi Inyamigim, Dept. of Philosophy, Nnamdi Azikiwe University, Awka

1.0 Introduction

Post-conflict situations are a critical phase after armed conflict, characterized by the need for humanitarian assistance, stabilization, and recovery — often involving displacement of refugees and internally displaced persons (IDPs). Millions are forced to flee their homes due to violence, persecution and instability, creating urgent demands for coordinated humanitarian response (UNHCR, 2021). Key stakeholders include the UN Office for the Coordination of Humanitarian Affairs (UN-OCHA), NGOs, and local community leaders.

2.0 Chapter Objectives

- Comprehend the difficulties of post-conflict recovery.
- Recognise the key functions played by stakeholders in maintaining peace and tranquillity.
- Discuss in clear terms the challenges in humanitarian response.
- Analyse strategies of inclusive evaluation for effective coordination.

3.0 Main Content

The late 20th/early 21st centuries saw the evolution of international humanitarian law, emphasizing protection of civilians and accountability for war crimes; the International Criminal Court (ICC), established 2002, aims to address impunity for atrocities in post-conflict societies (IDMC, 2021). Today, post-conflict situations are often protracted crises where recovery is hindered by ongoing violence, political instability and humanitarian needs — exemplified by the Syrian Civil War and the conflicts in South Sudan and Yemen, which require navigating both immediate needs and long-term rebuilding (UN-OCHA, 2021).

Features of Post-Conflict Situations

- **Humanitarian Crises:** widespread displacement (IDMC, 2021) creates a dual crisis — refugees needing assistance across international borders, and IDPs remaining within their home countries.
- **Economic Instability:** armed conflict disrupts local economies, destroying infrastructure, ending livelihoods and raising poverty; countries emerging from conflict face high unemployment and inflation (World Bank, 2020).
- **Social Fragmentation:** trust between communities erodes due to violence and trauma (Fischer, 2019), hindering rebuilding of social cohesion and stability.

The Refugee Crisis

Article 1 of the 1951 Convention defines a refugee as someone who, owing to a well-founded fear of persecution for reasons of race, religion, nationality, membership of a particular social group or political opinion, is outside their country of nationality and unable or unwilling to avail themselves of its protection (or, being stateless, is outside their former habitual residence and unable/unwilling to return) (UNHCR, 2001–2002).

Causes of the Refugee Crisis:

- **Armed Conflict:** prolonged violence/warfare directly displaces populations; civilians are often targeted, prompting flight (UNHCR, 2022).
- **Persecution:** systematic persecution based on ethnicity, religion, or political beliefs — manifesting as violence, discrimination and human-rights abuses (Smith, 2021).
- **Natural Disasters:** conflict can exacerbate natural-disaster impacts, increasing displacement and stress on resources (IDMC, 2021).

Challenges faced by refugees: access to basic services (healthcare, education, shelter — Benson & O'Neill, 2020), legal protection (complex/bureaucratic asylum procedures — UNHCR, 2022), and psychosocial support for displacement-related trauma (Morris, 2022). Host nations may experience resource strain and tensions with local populations; the international community must ensure adequate, timely response covering both immediate needs and long-term integration (Smith, 2021).

Internally Displaced Persons (IDPs)

IDPs are individuals/groups forced to flee their homes or habitual residence, particularly as a result of or to avoid the effects of armed conflict, generalized violence, human-rights violations, or natural/human-made disasters, who have not crossed an internationally recognized state border (UNHCR, 2022).

Refugees vs. IDPs — Key Distinction

Aspect	Refugee	Internally Displaced Person (IDP)
Border crossing	Has crossed an internationally recognized state border	Has NOT crossed an internationally recognized border; remains within own country
Legal protection	Covered by international legal frameworks (e.g. 1951 Convention, UNHCR)	Lacks the same international protections; enforcement of Guiding Principles is often inconsistent (IDMC, 2021)
Primary duty-bearer	Host country + international community	Primarily the individual's own national government

Unique Challenges Faced by IDPs:

- **Lack of International Protections:** IDPs do not benefit from the same legal frameworks as refugees; enforcement of the Guiding Principles is inconsistent, leaving them vulnerable to exploitation and neglect (IDMC, 2021).
- **Prolonged Displacement:** extended displacement can lead to chronic poverty and dependency on aid, hindering reintegration (Morris, 2022).
- **Access to Basic Needs:** overcrowded living conditions and inadequate sanitation increase disease/health risks (Benson & O'Neill, 2020).
- **Psychosocial Effects:** severe mental-health implications — anxiety, depression, PTSD — from violence and loss (Smith, 2021).

Legal and Policy Frameworks for IDPs

Unlike refugees, IDPs remain within their own countries and are primarily subject to national law, making the following framework elements crucial:

- **1. The Guiding Principles on Internal Displacement** (UN, 1998): Protection against Displacement (states must address root causes/respect human rights); Assistance and Protection (right to food, water, shelter, healthcare); Participation (IDPs involved in decisions affecting their lives, including return/resettlement).
- **2. National Legal Frameworks:** should define IDP rights (safety, assistance, participation) and establish government responsibilities for immediate assistance, long-term recovery and reintegration.
- **3. Integration into National Policies:** disaster-management plans and human-rights frameworks should explicitly cover IDPs.
- **4. Capacity Building for Government Officials:** legal-awareness training and best-practice-sharing workshops on coordination among agencies and humanitarian actors.
- **5. Engagement with Civil Society:** NGOs/community organisations provide insights on IDP challenges and hold governments accountable (advocacy).
- **6. Monitoring and Reporting Mechanisms:** regular assessments identify protection gaps; disaggregated data collection targets interventions.
- **7. Promoting Access to Justice:** legal-aid programmes and information dissemination about rights and available support.
- **8. International Cooperation and Support:** technical assistance from UNHCR/IOM, and best-practice sharing across countries.

(The material repeats these same eight elements as “Strategies to Strengthen These Frameworks” — content is identical, so it is not duplicated here.)

Role of UN-OCHA in Managing Post-Conflict Situations

UN-OCHA coordinates international humanitarian efforts among governments, NGOs and local communities, serving as a central hub for information-sharing and strategic planning to avoid duplication of effort. It leads resource mobilization/funding appeals, conducts data collection and needs assessments to inform evidence-based, targeted interventions, and promotes humanitarian principles/standards (protection of civilians, adherence to international humanitarian law). It also negotiates humanitarian access with governments and armed groups in insecure/hard-to-reach areas, and strengthens local/national actors' capacity to foster resilience and community-led recovery.

Role of Non-Governmental Organizations (NGOs)

NGOs operate independently of governments, driven by humanitarian principles. They deliver essential services (food, water, shelter, healthcare) where government capacity is limited — e.g. Doctors Without Borders (Médecins Sans Frontières) providing medical care in conflict zones (Benson & O'Neill, 2020). They also provide education and psychosocial support, advocate for refugee/IDP rights at national and international levels (Morris, 2022), build local capacity (training in healthcare, sanitation, conflict resolution, livelihood skills), partner with governments and international organizations, and monitor/evaluate humanitarian responses. Challenges include security risks, funding limitations, bureaucratic obstacles, and political resistance from governments (Smith, 2021).

Role of Community Leaders

Community leaders are crucial intermediaries between affected populations and humanitarian actors. They facilitate communication and trust between displaced individuals and external actors (Khan, 2020); mediate disputes and foster dialogue to rebuild trust among community members, contributing to social cohesion and preventing re-emergence of violence (Fischer, 2019); mobilize local resources and volunteer participation in rebuilding, fostering ownership and agency (Adams, 2021); provide insight into local culture/customs so interventions are culturally sensitive; and advocate for marginalized groups (women, children, minorities) in recovery efforts (Smith, 2021). They often face challenges of undermined authority, insecurity, and lack of resources/support (Khan, 2020).

Challenges in Managing Post-Conflict Situations

- **Security Instability:** ongoing violence, unrest or armed groups restrict humanitarian access and deter displaced people from returning home (Khan, 2020).
- **Lack of Funding and Resources:** heavy reliance on external donor funding, which is often insufficient — forcing organizations to prioritize some needs over others (Benson & O'Neill, 2020).
- **Fragmentation of Humanitarian Efforts:** numerous actors (NGOs, local organizations, international agencies) can create overlaps, gaps and inefficiencies without strong coordination (UN-OCHA, 2021).
- **Cultural and Social Barriers:** deep social divisions and mistrust among groups hinder collaborative efforts and social cohesion (Fischer, 2019).
- **Psychosocial Impact of Conflict:** trauma, grief and mental-health issues impede recovery engagement; adequate support services are often lacking (Morris, 2022).
- **Political Obstacles:** political instability or government resistance can impede humanitarian programmes; political agendas may distribute resources inequitably, and bureaucratic hurdles delay aid and limit local-actor participation (Smith, 2021).

4.0 Summary and Conclusion

Managing post-conflict situations requires coordinated efforts among international organizations, NGOs, community leaders and local populations to address refugee/IDP needs, restore infrastructure, and rebuild social cohesion. UN-OCHA ensures coordinated, resourced humanitarian response; NGOs deliver immediate assistance and long-term support while building local capacity; community leaders enhance recovery through communication, conflict resolution and resource mobilization. Success hinges on a holistic approach: empowering local actors, fostering stakeholder collaboration, and addressing security, funding, fragmentation, cultural, psychosocial and political challenges together.

QUICK REVISION — LAST-MINUTE BULLET LIST

- Intra-state conflict = within/between groups in one state; inter-state = between sovereign states.
- Conflict resolution = broad, addresses root causes; conflict management = negotiated agreement/settlement; conflict prevention = diplomatic means, non-use of force.
- International organizations = IGOs (members are governments, e.g. UN/AU/ECOWAS) vs. NGOs (members are private individuals/civil groups).
- UN's 4 key organs for conflict resolution: Security Council (10 non-permanent + 5 permanent/veto: USA, Russia, UK, France, China), Secretariat (DPO + DPPA + MSU), General Assembly (C-34 committee since 1965), ICJ (15 judges, 9-year terms).
- UN conflict-resolution tools: Prevention & Mediation, Peacemaking, Peacekeeping, Sanctions, Peacebuilding, other diplomatic measures (arbitration, humanitarian aid).
- Preventive diplomacy = the UN's main conflict-prevention tool; run via DPPA + Mediation Support Unit (MSU).
- SPMs = Special Political Missions (civilian, more than double the number of peacekeeping missions).
- Peacemaking example: 2015 Mali — UN peacekeeping mission facilitated peace agreement between state and armed groups.
- Peacebuilding partners: World Bank, IMF, DPPA, Peacebuilding Commission.
- Libya 2011 = UNSC Resolution 1973, implemented by NATO. Mali = France's Operation Serval after UNSC Resolution 2085 (2012).
- Peacekeeping definition (Boutros-Ghali, 1992): expands the possibility for BOTH conflict prevention AND peacemaking. Began 1948 (UNTSO); first deployed force = UNEF 1956 (Suez Crisis). 11 current missions, ~70,000 personnel.
- AU formed 2002 (from OAU, 1963); Agenda 2063 = “Silencing the Guns by 2020.”
- AU PSC: 15 members (10 for 2 years, 5 for 3 years); main pillar of APSA. Other APSA pillars: CEWS, Panel of the Wise, Peace Fund.
- AU stats: 38 African-led peace ops since 21st century in 25 countries (AU 22, OAU 4, ECOWAS 6). Current AU missions: AUSSOM (2025), AMISOM→ATMIS (2022), UNAMID (2008–2021, AU-UN hybrid in Darfur), RCI-LRA (2011–2018), Burundi observers (2015–2021).
- ECOWAS organs: The Commission (DPAPS/DMF, est. 2015, 4-phase DMC), Community Court of Justice, Council of Elders.
- ECOMOG = ECOWAS's key military/police enforcement body. Recent: SSMGB (Guinea-Bissau, 2022–), ECOMIB (2012–2020), Gambia (2017–2020), ECOMIL Liberia (2003), ECOMICI Côte d'Ivoire (2003).

• ECOWAS's current struggle: exit of the Alliance of Sahel States (AES) causing an integration crisis.

• 5 challenges facing UN/AU/ECOWAS: (1) Logistics & Financial Constraints, (2) Complexity of Conflicts, (3) Great-Power Interests, (4) Inadequate Institutional Structure, (5) Deficient UN–Regional Cooperation.

• Mali 2011–2013: AFISMA → MINUSMA transition strained UN–AU/ECOWAS cooperation; France later exited after the military takeover.

• Achievements: peace restored in Liberia/Sierra Leone/Côte d'Ivoire (UN mandate ended 30 June 2017); conflict control in Mali/CAR/Sudan (and historically Lebanon 1958, Yemen 1963–64, Congo 1960–64); UN humanitarian aid currently in Russia-Ukraine war and North-East Nigeria.

• Africa hosts ~45% of world's peacekeeping operations; A4P = Action for Peacekeeping (Guterres reform).

• Media = “fourth estate”; core roles = Information Dissemination, Agenda Setting, Influence on Opinions/Attitudes.

• Traditional institution (Nwosu, 2022) = grassroots governance rooted in custom/tradition/culture.

• Peace building (Kroc Institute, 2025) = building relationships across boundaries, resolving injustice non-violently; Christofis (2020) = complex, multi-actor process.

• Media roles in peacebuilding: Information Provider, Watchdog, Diplomat/Bridge Builder, Changing Attitudes, Strengthening Peace.

• Countering disinformation: Fact-checking, Media Literacy, Social Media Moderation, Collaboration/Partnership, Respectful Online Dialogue, Independence/Freedom of Expression.

• #EndSARS example = media as information provider countering misinformation. Benue farmers–herdsmen example = media as watchdog.

• Igbo extended-family dispute resolvers: Umuada and Umunna.

• Refugee (1951 Convention, Art.1) = outside own country, well-founded fear of persecution, unable/unwilling to return.

• IDP = displaced but has NOT crossed an international border; lacks refugee-level international protection.

• Guiding Principles on Internal Displacement = UN, 1998: Protection against Displacement, Assistance & Protection, Participation.

• ICC established 2002 — addresses impunity for post-conflict atrocities.

• UN-OCHA = coordination, resource mobilization, data/needs assessment, promoting humanitarian principles, negotiating access, strengthening local actors.

• Doctors Without Borders (Médecins Sans Frontières) = NGO example providing medical care in conflict zones.

• 6 challenges in post-conflict management: Security Instability, Funding/Resources, Fragmentation of Efforts, Cultural/Social Barriers, Psychosocial Impact, Political Obstacles.